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Predicting Animal Space-Use with Continuous-Time Markov Chains

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Abstract. Remote animal telemetry data is widely used in ecology to assess animal space-use and evaluate utilization distributions (UDs). However, traditional empirical UD (like kernel density or Brownian bridge estimators) can suffer from "start bias" if tag deployments are too short for an animal to fully explore its habitat, heavily biasing results toward the initial release location. Recently, predictive UD have been proposed in an attempt to mitigate this by finding the long-run stationary distribution of a stochastic process that uses habitat covariates to describe movement. This limiting distribution is free from start bias because it uses habitat variables to predict space-use in the future based on short term movements. Predictive UD have been calculated from Langevin diffusions as well as general continuous-time Markov chain models (CTMC). While log-linear closed form UD calculations are possible for Langevin models with coefficients directly relating habitat to space-use, CTMC UD have only been calculated numerically with no parameters directly relating habitat to use. Here we present a general class of CTMC models and show they have a closed form log-linear predictive UD. CTMCs have several benefits over Langevin models: (1) the exact likelihood can be used without approximation, (2) both categorical and continuous habitat variables can be used, and (3) fixed barriers to movement (e.g., land in movement of marine species) are automatically accounted for as part of the model. The R package `walk` was developed for fitting these models in practice and it is used demonstrate explicit UD estimation from CTMC models with a small data set of Hawaiian false killer whales (*Pseudorca crassidens*), including population inference from individual UD.

Key words: CTMC, Hidden Markov model, Limiting distribution, Satellite telemetry, Space-use, Utilization distribution

1 Introduction

Any quick literature search will reveal that remote collection and analysis of animal locations, or telemetry data, have become a ubiquitous and important tool in the advancement of animal ecology. A perennial subject within animal telemetry analysis is the assessment of space-use. That is what aspects of habitat and movement control where an individual generally occurs on the landscape. The topic of animal space-use is often used in conjunction with the terms home range, resource selection, or utilization distribution. Here we are specifically concerned with the concept of utilization distributions (UD) as defined by Powell and Mitchell (2012), a spatial probability distribution that describes an animal's location at any random time. More specifically, what habitat characteristics influence that distribution.

Literature on UD's is generally divided into two types. The first type is what we term *empirical* UD's. Empirical UD's are constructed based on a summary of observed locations, for example, the traditional kernel density (Keating and Cherry, 2009) or Brownian bridge estimators (Horne et al., 2007). These are empirical because they place positive mass over observed locations. Absence of observed use may be a symptom of *start bias* (Whitehead and Jonsen, 2013). Start bias results from tag deployments that are not long enough for the animal to fully explore the space and habitat available to it over the course of study. Therefore, spatial use assessments based solely on the observed locations can be biased towards the release location of the animal. This is especially true in recent years where many locations can be obtained over a fine time-scale and thus produce highly autocorrelated paths. To match the increased technological sophistication of location devices, statistical methodology of empirical UD methods have increased to account for the

high autocorrelation (e.g., Fleming et al. 2015; Calabrese et al. 2016). However, the most basic solution for reducing start bias is to increase data collection, i.e., tag deployment interval length (Fieberg et al., 2010). This is easy to prescribe by analysts, but in practice may be difficult to ensure telemetry devices stay active long enough and may be out of the researchers control. This aspect motivates the development of *predictive* UD.

In order to counter start bias effects researchers can fit resource selection function (RSF) models (Manly et al., 2002) to telemetry data to investigate what space characteristics an animal might prefer relative to available habitat. A map of space preference based on resource selection is used as a UD approximation that is not subject to start bias because it makes use of spatial habitat characteristics that can be assessed at locations away from where the animal was located during tag deployment. However, Barnett and Moorcroft (2008) describe some general results concerning the weighted distribution from Johnson et al. (2008, 2013) of a resource selection movement model in discrete time. Assuming a symmetric movement kernel, they show that the limiting distribution is proportional to the resource selection function or the square of the resource selection function depending on how large the movement kernel is relative to the spatial variation of the habitat. Therefore, while qualitatively similar, RSFs and UD can be quite different depending on the scale of movement relative to the variation in habitat.

Predictive UD seek to blend the habitat association benefits of RSF analysis with movement models such that the resulting UD functions, which appear similar to RSFs, represent the actual UD. In essence a movement model is fitted to the telemetry data and the location of the animal is predicted from the movement model for a time far in the future. If it exists, this is the stationary or limiting distribution of the movement process. These limiting distributions are independent of the starting location, thus, removing the

start bias (Whitehead and Jonsen, 2013; Wilson et al., 2018). Moorcroft et al. (1999) present an early example of a predictive UD approach modeling home range of coyotes (*Canis latrans*) with a movement model which included a response to scent marks. Wilson et al. (2018) extended their work to continuous-time Markov chains (CTMC) that included habitat based movement. Although, the CTMC predicted UD was derived numerically from the fitted model components, there was no direct parameter association that could be used to relate habitat variables with the UD surface. Michelot et al. (2019) used continuous-time and space Langevin diffusions to model resource selection and movement. From this model it is possible to calculate an closed-form predictive UD with the log-linear form,

$$\mathbf{u}(\mathbf{s}) \propto \exp\{\mathbf{x}(\mathbf{s})'\boldsymbol{\beta}\}, \quad (1)$$

where $\mathbf{u}(\mathbf{s})$ is the UD at location $\mathbf{s}$ and $\mathbf{x}(\mathbf{s})$ are habitat covariates at location $\mathbf{s}$. This model produces the type of closed-form UD prediction that directly relates the UD to habitat variables through the coefficients $\boldsymbol{\beta}$. However. There are some drawbacks for this approach. First the likelihood for this model is not available in closed form, so a discrete time (Euler) approximation must be used. Second, this model is only applicable to continuously valued covariates because the habitat gradient surfaces, $\nabla\mathbf{x}(\mathbf{s})$, must be used in the movement model (Michelot et al., 2019).

Herein we consider a general class of CTMC models for which we can obtain closed-form predictions of the UD from the fitted model parameters. The CTMC model has several advantages over the Langevin derived UD. First, there is no approximation necessary to calculate the likelihood for optimization. Second, continuous or discrete habitat covariates can be used for movement modeling and UD prediction. Another benefit

of the CTMC model is that barriers to movement can be accounted for directly in the study area definition. This is a big benefit to marine environments that have complex land barriers to movement. Finally, because there is no approximation for the likelihood, error does not propagate to the UD prediction, so it is exact. To fit these CTMC models, we developed the R package `walk*` that can fit general CTMC models including the more general forms requiring numerical calculation of the UD as presented by Hanks et al. (2015) and Wilson et al. (2018). The process of fitting models and making UD inference is demonstrated with telemetry data from a false killer whale (*Pseudorca crassidens*) population in the Hawaiian Islands.

2 Explicit Utilization Distribution CTMC Modeling

2.1 A brief CTMC primer

Here we provide a brief description of continuous-time Markov chain (CTMC) models. More detail can be found in Norris (1998). In a CTMC movement model the geographical study domain is partitioned into a cells or other discrete locations indexed by $\mathcal{C} = \{1, \dots, n\}$. Each cell, i , has a set of neighboring cells $\mathcal{N}_i = \{j \in \mathcal{C} : i \sim j\}$, where $i \sim j$ means that an animal can go from cell i to cell j in one move. For example, in a raster partition, neighboring cells might share a border (rook neighborhood) or a corner point (queen neighborhood). Here we assume that if $i \sim j$, then $j \sim i$, that is, it is possible to return to a cell that was just exited. As with all CTMCs, the complete path of the individual, $\mathcal{P}$, can be decomposed into the *jump times* at which cell transitions are made, $\mathcal{T} = \{\tau_0, \tau_1, \dots, \tau_M\}$ and the *embedded Markov chain*, which is the sequence of cells visited,

*Available from: <https://dsjohnson.r-universe.dev/walk>

114 $\mathcal{G} = \{g_0, \dots, g_M\}$. Thus, the CTMC path has the bivariate discrete-time representation
 115 $\{(\tau_m, g_m) : m = 0, \dots, M\}$, where $\tau_0 = 0$ and $T \geq \tau_M$ is the end of the telemetry
 116 deployment. In a slight abuse of notation, we also use g_t and $\mathcal{N}_t$ (i.e., indexed by
 117 continuous time, $t \in [0, T]$) to represent the location and neighborhood of the individual for
 118 any time, that is, $g_t = g_m$ and $\mathcal{N}_t = \mathcal{N}_{g_m}$ for $t \in [\tau_m, \tau_{m+1})$.

119 CTMC models are defined by the conditional movement rates between cells, $\lambda_{ij} \geq 0$.
 120 The total rate of movement away from cell i is $\Lambda_i = \sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}_i} \lambda_{ij}$. One useful property of
 121 CTMCs is that the residence time in a cell, $r_m = \tau_{m+1} - \tau_m$, is exponentially distributed
 122 with rate Λ_i , therefore, the expected residence time in cell i is Λ_i^{-1} . To describe movement
 123 throughout the study area from time s to time t we use the $n \times n$ transition probability
 124 matrix, $\mathbf{\Gamma}(t - s)$, where the (i, j) element is the conditional probability $[g_t = j | g_s = i]$.
 125 To calculate, $\mathbf{\Gamma}(t - s)$ we put all the rates in the $n \times n$ matrix $\mathbf{Q}$ with $(-\Lambda_1, \dots, -\Lambda_n)$ on
 126 the diagonal and λ_{ij} in the i th row, j th column. Then the transition matrix is
 127 $\mathbf{\Gamma}(t - s) = \text{expm}\{\mathbf{Q}(t - s)\}$ where “expm” is the matrix exponential function.

128 If a limiting distribution exists, as $t \rightarrow \infty$, $\mathbf{\Gamma}(t - s) \rightarrow \mathbf{\Gamma}_\infty$ where each row is equal to
 129 the vector $\mathbf{u}$, the limiting distribution or in our case the predicted UD. The conditions
 130 under which a CTMC will have a long-run limiting distribution over the study area are
 131 outlined by Wilson et al. (2018). These conditions are: (1) *Homogeneity*, constant
 132 movement rates through time, (2) *Irreducibility*, any cell can be reached from any other cell
 133 given sufficient time, and *Positive recurrence*, an individual will return to cell in before
 134 $t = \infty$. Wilson et al. (2018) use numerical Eigen decomposition of $\mathbf{Q}$ to obtain $\mathbf{u}$, but they
 135 also present an additional result that we use for constructing CTMC models with closed
 136 form UDs. Assuming the previous conditions are met for a CTMC model, the limiting

137 distribution can be evaluated as

$$u_i \propto \alpha_i / \Lambda_i \quad (2)$$

138 where α is the limiting distribution of the embedded Markov chain, $\{g_0, g_1, \dots\}$. This
 139 makes intuitive sense that the long-run probability of occurrence is the long-run probability
 140 the animal is in the cell weighted by the expected amount of time it spends there.

141 2.2 CTMC models with closed form UD

142 The CTMC movement model we consider for explicit UD modeling has the form,

$$\log(\lambda_{ij}) = \mathbf{x}'_{1i}\alpha + \mathbf{x}'_{2j}\delta + (\mathbf{x}_{3j} - \mathbf{x}_{3i})'\gamma + \mathbf{z}'_{ij}\eta, \quad (3)$$

143 where $\mathbf{x}_{1i}$ is a set of habitat covariates recorded in the current cell i , $\mathbf{x}_{2j}$ are other
 144 covariates recorded in cell $j \in \mathcal{N}_i$, $\mathbf{x}_{3j} - \mathbf{x}_{3i}$ are local differences of a third set of habitat
 145 covariates, and $\mathbf{z}_{ij}$ are symmetric pair specific covariates ($\mathbf{z}_{ij} = \mathbf{z}_{ji}$) such as, say, distance
 146 between i and j . The covariates in $\mathbf{x}_1$ only control residence time and do not affect which
 147 cell an individual might choose upon moving. Variables in $\mathbf{x}_2$ primarily function to specify
 148 preference for neighboring cells based on the absolute value of the covariates, while the
 149 local differences control movement based on relative habitat differences. Both of these
 150 movement effects also influence residence time as well. That is if a pull to another habitat
 151 is strong a movement to that cell is more likely in the near term.

152 Using Markov Chain Monte Carlo (MCMC) theoretical results (Michelot et al., 2018;
 153 Blackwell, 2026) we can show that a CTMC movement model that satisfies the previous
 154 three conditions to have a limiting distribution and has rates of the form (3), it has the

limiting distribution $u_i \propto \exp(\mathbf{x}'_i \boldsymbol{\beta})$, where $\mathbf{x}_i = (\mathbf{x}'_{1i}, \mathbf{x}'_{2i}, \mathbf{x}'_{3i})'$ and $\boldsymbol{\beta} = (-\boldsymbol{\alpha}', \boldsymbol{\delta}', 2\boldsymbol{\gamma}')'$ (see online supplement S1 for proof). For a given application, satisfying the three general conditions is largely a function of cell partition and study area. The homogeneity requirement is satisfied by constant rates through time. For irreducibility, the study area cannot be separated in to multiple areas such that travel between them is impossible. Finally, for irreducibility, the study area cannot possess any permeable barriers such that the individual cannot return once crossed.

2.3 Parameter Estimation

Previous estimation of CTMC movement parameters using satellite location telemetry data used an imputation method (see Scharf et al. 2017) which fills in missing cell locations between location acquisition times (Hanks et al., 2015; Wilson et al., 2018; Johnson et al., 2021). Even though the imputation method attempts to propagate the uncertainty of the missing locations, it is unclear how this affects estimation of the parameters. Therefore we will use the exact, although potentially more computationally expensive hidden Markov model (HMM) formulation of the model that is often use for CTMC analysis marine fish movement from archival telemetry tags (e.g., see CH. 10 of Thorson and Kristensen 2024).

2.3.1 Satellite telemetry data specification and processing

For the proposed analysis we consider satellite telemetry data for an individual of the form $\mathbf{y} = \{\mathbf{y}_1, \dots, \mathbf{y}_K\}$, where $\mathbf{y}_k = (\mathbf{s}_k, t_k, \boldsymbol{\epsilon}_k)$, $\mathbf{s}_k$ is the observed location of the individual within the study area at time t_k and $\boldsymbol{\epsilon}_k$ represents information or parameters governing location uncertainty. For example, $\boldsymbol{\epsilon}_k$ might represent the major and minor error ellipse lengths of a Kalman Filtered Argos location (McClintock et al., 2015) or a known error

177 radius for GPS locations, e.g., 20m. From these locations we translate the continuous-space
 178 data locations and uncertainty to the discrete grid, $\mathcal{C}$, using a function, say,
 179 $p(\mathbf{y}_k, \mathcal{C}) = \mathbf{p}_k = (p_{1k}, \dots, p_{nk})$, where p_{ik} is the probability that the animal is located within
 180 cell i at time t_k . We used a general form because the function, p , will depend on how
 181 location uncertain is assessed for the specific satellite and tag hardware. However,
 182 uncertainty in the true location, $\boldsymbol{\mu}_k$, is often represented by the bivariate Normal
 183 distribution $\boldsymbol{\mu}_k \sim N(\mathbf{s}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k)$, where $\boldsymbol{\epsilon}_k = \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k$. In that case, p_{ik} would represent the mass of
 184 the Normal distribution contained within the i th cell. For a raster grid partitioning of the
 185 study area this can be calculated by,

$$p_{ik} = \text{CDF}(x_{i2}, y_{i2}) - \text{CDF}(x_{i2}, y_{i1}) - \text{CDF}(x_{i1}, y_{i2}) + \text{CDF}(x_{i1}, y_{i1})$$

186 where $[x_{i1}, x_{i2}] \times [y_{i1}, y_{i2}]$ is the bounding box for the i th cell and CDF is the bivariate
 187 normal cumulative density function with mean $\mathbf{s}_k$ and covariance $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k$. A Monte Carlo
 188 option for other error distributions would be to draw a sufficiently large sample from the
 189 distribution and assess the proportion of samples that falls within each cell.

190 2.3.2 Likelihood calculation

191 For an individual the likelihood is calculated with the matrix equation (Zucchini et al.
 192 2016; Ch. 3),

$$[\mathbf{y} | \boldsymbol{\alpha}, \boldsymbol{\delta}, \boldsymbol{\gamma}, \boldsymbol{\eta}] = \boldsymbol{\pi}' \mathbf{P}(\mathbf{y}_1) \boldsymbol{\Gamma}(t_2 - t_1) \mathbf{P}(\mathbf{y}_2) \cdots \boldsymbol{\Gamma}(t_K - t_{K-1}) \mathbf{P}(\mathbf{y}_K) \mathbf{1} \quad (4)$$

193 where $\boldsymbol{\pi} = (\pi_1, \dots, \pi_n)$ is the probability at the individual is cell i at t_1 , $\mathbf{P}(\mathbf{y}_k) = \text{diag}(\mathbf{p}_k)$,
 194 $\boldsymbol{\Gamma}(t_k - t_{k-1}) = \exp\{\mathbf{Q}(t_k - t_{k-1})\}$, and $\mathbf{1}$ is a vector of 1s. The natural choice for $\boldsymbol{\pi}$ is $\mathbf{u}$, the

limiting distribution defined by the CTMC movement model, but there are other choices. For example, if a telemetered individual was released at a known location after tagging that may not be representative of its usual movement, then $\boldsymbol{\pi}$ would be a vector of all 0s except for the cell containing the release site, which would be a 1. In the false killer whale example below, we use $\boldsymbol{\pi} = \mathbf{u}$ because they were tagged where they were encountered in the wild. In the R package `walk` we use scaling methods to avoid numerical underflow and well as the efficient sparse matrix methods presented in Sherlock (2021) to calculate products of the form $\mathbf{v}' \exp\{\mathbf{Q}(t_k - t_{k-1})\}$.

In addition to the matrix exponential evaluation numerical savings, another optional approach to save computational effort is to set a censoring value for the maximum Λ_i value. The numerical methods of Sherlock (2021) require more matrix operations for higher values of $\max(\Lambda_i)$. For some cells, the log linear λ_{ij} model may produce rates of movement that are unrealistically high in some parts of the study area. With respect to UD this would imply that an individual will not remain in that cell and the $u_i \approx 0$. Hewitt et al. (2023) considered a logit rate model that restricts this behavior, but that model does not allow us to construct a CTMC with an explicit limiting distribution. So, we propose picking a censoring value, say, Λ^* and setting $\lambda_{ij}^* = (\Lambda^*/\Lambda_i)\lambda_{ij}$ if $\Lambda_i > \Lambda^*$. If Λ^* is sufficiently large, this will have negligible impact on $\mathbf{u}$ estimation but can dramatically help numerical likelihood evaluation. One reasonable way to choose Λ^* is to select the minimum amount of time that an animal would likely to reside in a cell, say r^* . Then set Λ^* so that $Pr(r < r^* | \Lambda^*)$ is near 1. This implies that cells with $\Lambda_i > \Lambda^*$, residence time is sufficiently short such that we can censor the rate at Λ^* . The effect on $\mathbf{u}$ can be verified by comparing the exact, numerically calculated $\mathbf{u}$ from the censored rate model (Wilson et al., 2018) to $u_i \propto \exp(\mathbf{x}_i' \boldsymbol{\beta})$. If there are sufficiently large discrepancies, Λ^* can be increased. When

$\Lambda^* \geq \max(\Lambda_i)$ the UD's are guaranteed to be identical.

Once the CTMC movement model has been fitted the maximum likelihood estimate of $\hat{\beta}_{\text{CTMC}} = (\alpha', \delta', \gamma')'$ needs to be transformed to the UD coefficients via $\hat{\beta} = \mathbf{M}\hat{\beta}_{\text{CTMC}}$ and $\mathbf{M} = \text{diag}((-1'_\alpha, 1'_\delta, 21'_\gamma)')$. Thus, the large sample covariance matrix of the UD coefficients is $\mathbf{V}(\hat{\beta}) = \mathbf{M}\mathbf{V}(\hat{\beta}_{\text{CTMC}})\mathbf{M}$. If only the standard errors are desired, one can simply multiply the CTMC coefficient standard errors by the multipliers, but if the entire covariance matrix is desired the matrix multiplication is necessary.

3 False Killer Whale Space-Use

In this section, we will apply the modeling approach described in the previous sections to a telemetry dataset on endangered false killer whales (FKW; *Pseudorca crassidens*) in the Hawaiian Islands (Baird 2016). This particular population is resident to the insular waters of the main Hawaiian Islands (MHI; includes Kaua'i/Ni'ihau, Oahu, Maui Nui, and Hawai'i Island) and is comprised of five social clusters, or groups of close family members and regular associates (Baird et al., 2008, 2019; Baird, 2016; Martien et al., 2019). These whales are known to move quickly and frequently among island areas throughout their range (Baird et al., 2010, 2012, 2021; Baird, 2016). Due to inherent challenges associated with tracking apex marine predators, this dataset is characterized by variable deployment durations and irregular location data streams. Considering these factors may drive start bias, as well as their expansive range, we deem this an appropriate dataset to empirically demonstrate the utility of predictive UD's. For the purposes of this assessment, we only focus on movements of 5 individuals that were satellite tagged in 2021 and 2022. There is one representative from each social cluster in the data.

3.1 Satellite tag data

False killer whale satellite tag deployment methods have been described in detail elsewhere (see Baird et al. 2010, 2012) so they are only briefly summarized here. Individuals were tagged with Argos transmitting SPOT6 ($n = 4$) and SPLASH10 ($n = 1$) tags during dedicated small boat survey efforts throughout the main Hawaiian Islands (Baird et al. 2012, 2021; Baird 2016; see Baird et al. 2013 for details on surveys). Deployment duration ranged from 12 days to 81 days (median=40 days). Argos location data were processed through the Douglas-Argos Filter (accessed via Movebank; Kranstauber et al. 2011; Douglas et al. 2012) to remove erroneous locations based on unrealistic travel speeds and turning angles. The final analytical dataset consisted of 5 trajectories and 4,009 filtered Argos and Fastloc GPS (SPASH10 tag) locations (Figure 1A). For the Argos locations, we used the Kalman-filter diagnostic ellipse data to construct error covariance matrices (McClintock et al., 2015). While for the Fastloc GPS locations, we used the 95% quantile error ranges from Dujon et al. (2014), based on the number of satellites acquired, as twice the standard deviation of the normal error.

3.2 Study area and habitat variables

The official management range of the MHI stock of FKW was documented in Bradford et al. (2015) and represents a minimum convex polygon surrounding a buffer of the main Hawaiian Islands (see Figure 1A). This is the study area boundary we use for the UD analysis.

For habitat characteristics we used two modeled global oceanographic variables from E.U. Copernicus Marine Service: (1) Sea Surface Temperature (SST; °C; DOI:

<https://doi.org/10.48670/moi-00016>) and (2) Sea Level Anomaly (SLA; m; DOI: <https://doi.org/10.48670/moi-00148>). SST is available at 0.082° resolution and SLA is available at 0.125° degree resolution. In order to match resolution we chose to project the SLA raster to the resolution of the SST raster to avoid losing oceanographic information. Because we are using these variables to predict long term space-use, we used a single layer for each variable that was the 2 year daily average in the study area. This allowed us to model movement with respect to typical oceanographic conditions (Figure 1B-C).

In addition to the oceanographic variables, we used distance from land (m) to model FKW's resident nature in the MHI. Also, we also included a depth residual variable by adding data from the global, 30 arc-second ETOPO elevation model (NOAA National Centers for Environmental Information, 2022) and removing the linear trend of distance from land. The distance and depth variables were projected to the 0.082° SST resolution as well. Then all data, including telemetry data, were projected to the Hawaii Albers Equal Area projection, ESRI:102007 (Figure 1D-E)

3.3 CTMC model and population inference

The CTMC movement rate model we used to model the telemetry for each individual

$l = 1, \dots, 5$ was

$$\log \lambda_{ij} = \beta_0 + \underbrace{\text{DEPTH}_i + \text{SST}_i + \text{SST}_i^2 + \text{SLA}_i + \text{SLA}_i^2}_{\mathbf{x}_1 \text{ portion}} + \underbrace{[\text{DIST}_j - \text{DIST}_i]}_{\mathbf{x}_3 \text{ portion}}$$

In this model differences of the distance from land variable were used as a movement kernel between cells i and j . This allowed individuals to prefer movement towards (or away from) land at the same rate no matter how far away they are. In addition SST, SLA, and DIST

283 were Z -transformed for numerical stability. The DEPTH residual was already on a nearly
 284 standard normal scale and DIST was only used as a difference, so values were not large
 285 enough to cause issue.

286 Individually estimated FKW coefficients and predicted UD s can be difficult to
 287 interpret for population inference and management considerations. Therefore, we used the
 288 2-stage meta-analysis method of Johnson et al. (2022) to approximate the Bayesian
 289 random effects model,

$$[\mathbf{y}_1, \dots, \mathbf{y}_N | \boldsymbol{\beta}_1, \dots, \boldsymbol{\beta}_N] = \prod_{l=1}^N [\mathbf{y}_l | \mathbf{M}^{-1} \boldsymbol{\beta}_l]$$

$$[\boldsymbol{\beta}_1, \dots, \boldsymbol{\beta}_N | \boldsymbol{\theta}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}] = \prod_{l=1}^N N(\boldsymbol{\beta}_l | \boldsymbol{\theta}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma})$$

290 where $\mathbf{y}_l$ is the observed data for individual $i = 1, \dots, N$ and the prior distribution for the
 291 random effect mean and variance is $[\boldsymbol{\theta}] [\boldsymbol{\Sigma}]$. Even if individual inference is desired, it is
 292 useful to fit this hierarchical model because it allows us to share information between
 293 individuals. That is we can make inference to the posterior distribution $[\boldsymbol{\beta}_l | \mathbf{y}_1, \dots, \mathbf{y}_N]$. If
 294 we assume that there is some similarity in movement between individuals then we can
 295 leverage all data for better individual inference.

296 In the first stage the CTMC model was fitted separately to the data from each
 297 individual using normal location errors. For the rate truncation we set $\Lambda^* = 138.16$. This
 298 resulted from selecting the minimum residence time, r^* to be 1 minute and residence
 299 probability 0.9. The R function `walk::find_clip` will calculate Λ^* . In the second stage we
 300 fitted the multivariate linear mixed model,

$$\hat{\boldsymbol{\beta}}_l = \boldsymbol{\theta} + \mathbf{u}_l + \boldsymbol{\delta}_l; \quad l = 1, \dots, N$$

301 where $\hat{\beta}_l$ is the MLE estimate of the coefficients for the l th individual, the random effect is
 302 $[\mathbf{u}_l|\Sigma] = N(\mathbf{0}, \Sigma)$, the error term is $[\delta_l|\mathbf{V}(\hat{\beta}_l)] = N(0, \mathbf{V}(\hat{\beta}_l))$, and $\mathbf{V}(\hat{\beta}_l)$ is the parameter
 303 covariance matrix from the first MLE step. For this analysis we used independent random
 304 effects, that is, $\Sigma = \text{diag}(\sigma_1^2, \dots, \sigma_7^2)$. The `nimble` R package (de Valpine et al., 2017) was
 305 used to optimize model with respect to the parameters (i.e., maximum *a posteriori*, MAP)
 306 subject to the prior distributions,

$$\begin{aligned}
 [\theta_w] &= N(0, \tau_w^2); & [\tau_w] &= \text{Exponential}(1) \\
 [\sigma_w] &= \text{Exponential}(1)
 \end{aligned}$$

307 for $w = 1, \dots, 7$. The exponential priors for the variance parameters were added to penalize
 308 the complexity of the model (i.e., regularization) to perform selection for the population
 309 level parameters (Hooten and Hobbs, 2015; Simpson et al., 2017). Following second stage
 310 model fitting we can extract the approximate MAP estimates $\bar{\theta}$ and $\bar{\beta}_1, \dots, \bar{\beta}_N$, where $\bar{\beta}_l$
 311 is the approximate MAP of the posterior $[\beta_l|\mathbf{y}_1, \dots, \mathbf{y}_N]$. The linear mixed model was
 312 fitted using the optimization capabilities of the R package `nimble` (Citation, 2015).

313 3.4 Results

314 Individual results for all individuals were generally consistent with notable deviations being
 315 individual PcTag074 did not have any effect of SLA on its UD and PcTag070 had negative
 316 effect of the linear SST term (Figure 2). All other coefficients were similar in direction, i.e.,
 317 less than or greater than 0. This bolsters the idea of using the 2 stage meta-analytic
 318 approach to share data between individuals to improve estimates. The second stage
 319 individual coefficient estimates, $\bar{\beta}_l$ illustrate that there is only a significant amount of

individual variation in the DEPTH and SLA² coefficients (Figure 2). All other second stage coefficients are shrunk to the population mean estimates, $\bar{\theta}$ with nearly identical approximate credible intervals (Figure 2). There was only 1 nonsignificant population coefficient, the linear SLA term. Correspondingly, the penalized model complexity priors shrunk the SLA term to zero. All other population coefficients were different than zero. The DEPTH and DIST coefficients were negative as expected because this population inhabits shallower waters close to the MHI without venturing away. The zero SLA coefficient combined with the negative SLA² term implies a maximum effect at 0, but we used a Z-transform, therefore, the maximum effect occurs at the mean original SLA value. Both SST coefficients are positive implying that the typical individual is probably located in the warmest SST conditions in the study area.

Unsurprisingly, the similarity in coefficient estimates produced similar predicted UD at the first stage (Figure 3). Individual PcTag074 had a more notably diffuse UD, the other four individuals had very similar looking UD. This may be due to the lack of SLA effect on the UD of PcTag074. After the second stage, the UD are even more similar as the second stage coefficients are essentially the same at the population mean coefficients (Figure 4). The UD created from the population mean coefficients is illustrated in Figure 4 (Typical). This is the UD of a so called “Typical” or median individual, not the population average UD because of the log link between the coefficients and the UD. Even after the second stage the coefficients for PcTag074 lack any SLA effect, so the UD is the only substantially different one from the typical UD.

In order to check that the rate truncation did not adversely affect the estimated UD we compared the truncated numerical Eigen decomposition UD ($u_{ei,i}$; Wilson et al. 2018), which is the exact UD for the censored movement models, with the exponential closed form

344 version using Bhattacharyya’s Affinity (BA) (Bhattacharyya, 1943),

$$BA = \sum_{i \in \mathcal{C}} \sqrt{u_{ei,i} \cdot u_i}.$$

345 The values of BA range from 0 (no similarity) to 1 (identical distributions) (Fieberg and
346 Kochanny, 2005). The proportion of study area cells truncated in the fitting of individual
347 models ranged from 0–44% of the study area. However, BA ranged from 0.996–1 indicated
348 that the truncated cells possessed very little UD mass and the closed form and exact
349 truncated UDs were virtually identical. Therefore, we can be assured that the truncation
350 approximation did not adversely affect parameter estimation and no adjustment is
351 necessary for this analysis.

352 4 Discussion

353 Acknowledgments

354 The findings and conclusions in the paper are those of the authors and do not necessarily
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356 names does not imply endorsement by the National Marine Fisheries Service, NOAA.

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Figure 1: Habitat covariates

Figure 2: Parameter estimates for fitted UD surfaces. The Stage 1 values are from individually fitted models. The Stage 2 estimates are parameters estimates using the two stage method of Johnson et al. (2022) to approximate a combined random effects model. The solid vertical lines are the estimated random effect means and the dashed lines are the approximate 95% credible intervals.

Figure 3: Individual model predicted utilization distributions. These UDs were predicted using only the data from each respective individual. A UD prediction for PcTag071 is absent because the resulting prediction was nonsensical given the individual movement parameter estimates. That is, large (but highly uncertain) SLA and SLA^2 coefficients resulted in only a few cells getting all the UD mass. This illustrates one of the problem when using movement models to predict space use.

Figure 4: Predicted UDs after 2 stage approach.

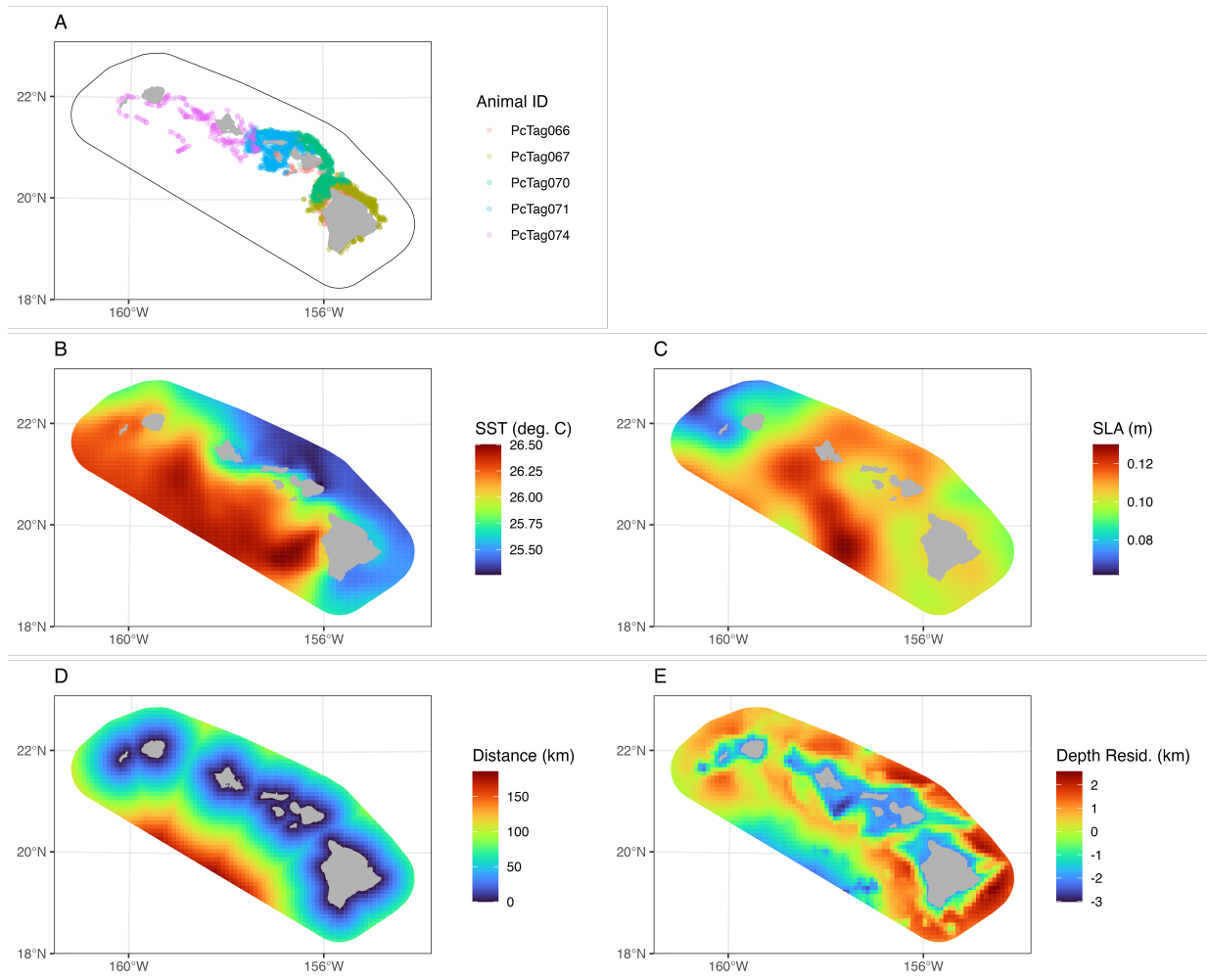


Figure 1

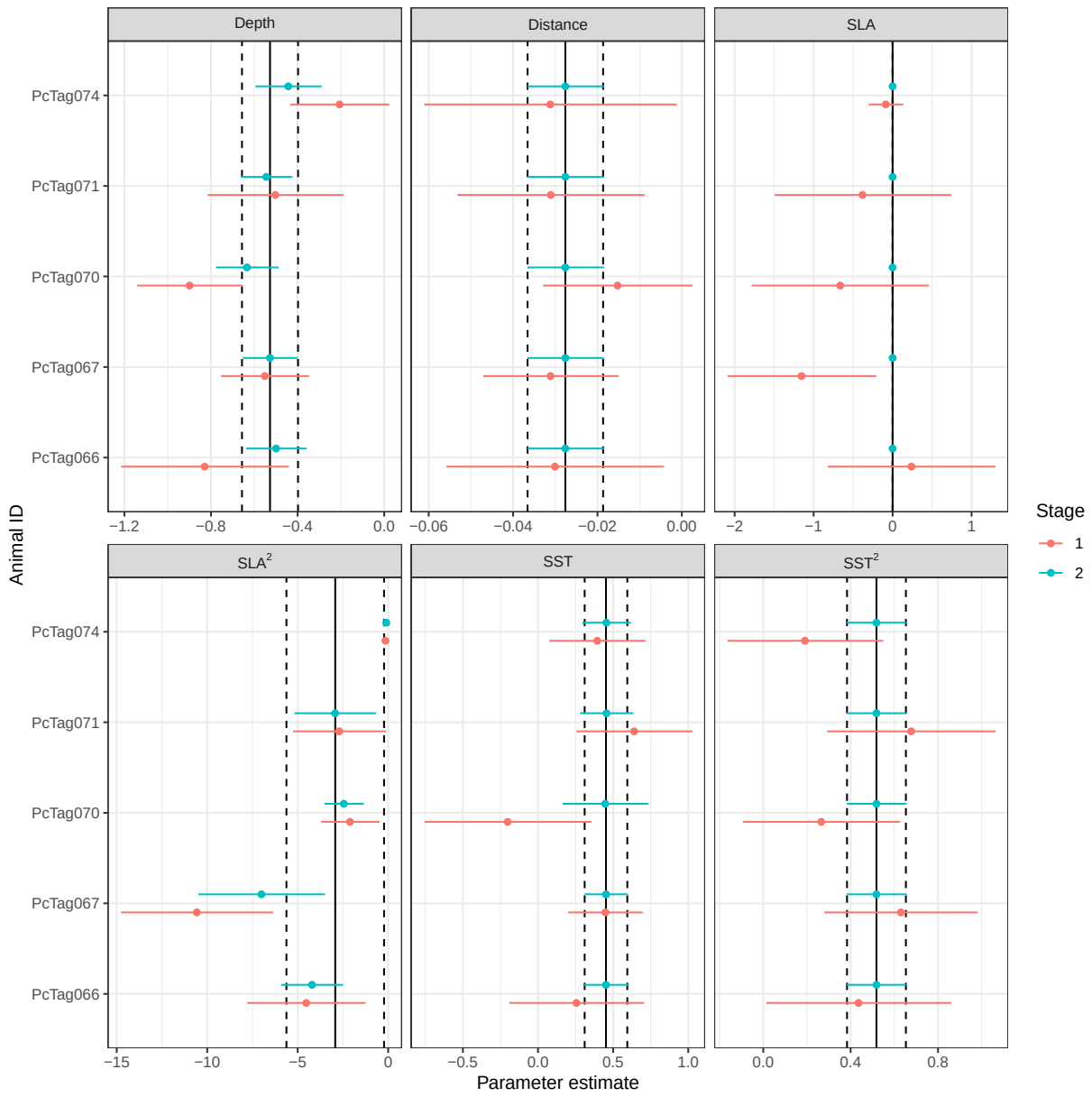


Figure 2

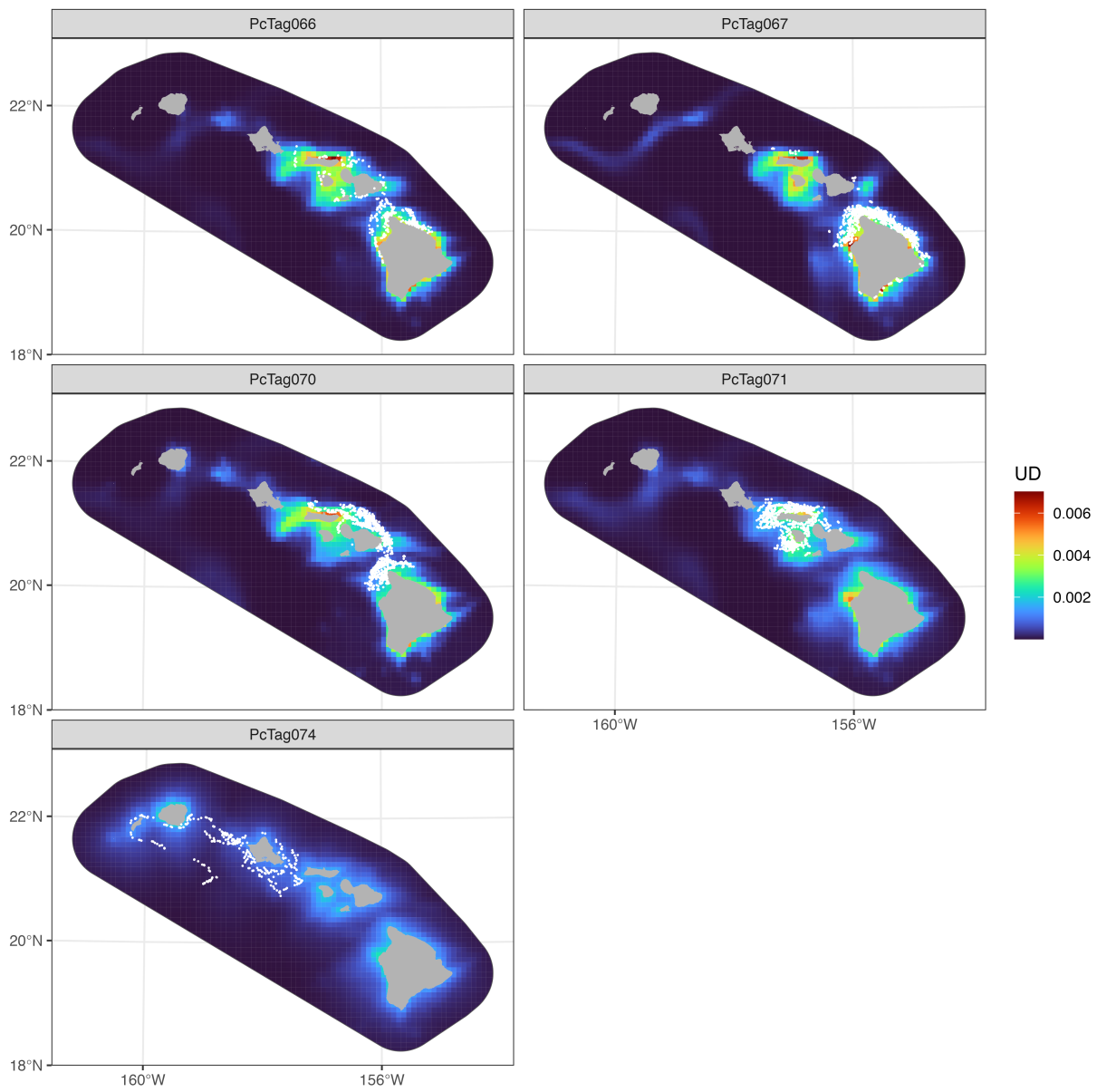


Figure 3

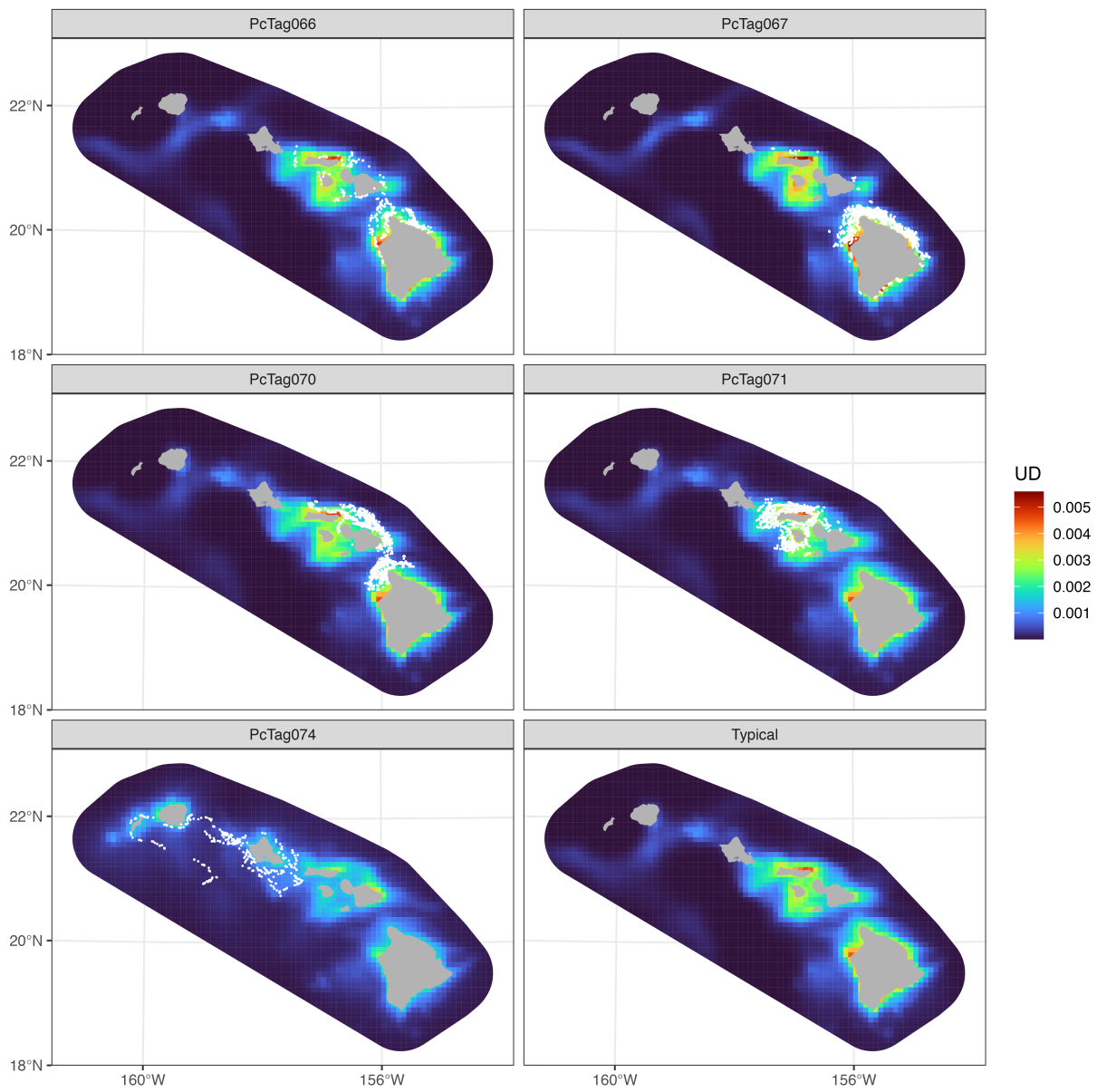


Figure 4